

Computational Weber electrodynamics with symplectic numerical integrators

Samer Al Duleimi

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Abstract

This paper presents

1 Introduction

The two main equations in Weber's electrodynamics are the *velocity-dependent potential*

$$U = \frac{q_1 q_2}{r} \left(1 - \frac{\dot{r}^2}{2c^2} \right) \quad (1)$$

and *Weber's force law*

$$\vec{F}_{12} = q_1 q_2 \frac{\hat{r}}{r^2} \left(1 - \frac{\dot{r}^2}{2c^2} + \frac{r\ddot{r}}{c^2} \right) \quad (2)$$

where $r^2 = (x_1 - x_2)^2 + (y_1 - y_2)^2 + (z_1 - z_2)^2$ is the squared distance between two particles with electric charges q_1 and q_2 , $\dot{r} = dr/dt$ is the relative radial velocity, $\ddot{r} = d\dot{r}/dt$ is the relative radial acceleration and c is the speed of light in vacuum. This setup is described in more detail in Appendix A and follows conventions used in Assis [1994].

In SI units, (1) and (2) would have a factor of $1/(4\pi\epsilon_0)$ multiplying the right-hand side, where ϵ_0 is the permittivity of free space. We choose to omit this factor by using an alternative system of units that better suits our computational purposes, see Section 2.5.

Weber's electrodynamics is an *action at a distance* theory. It satisfies Newton's third law of motion in the *strong form* and thus $\vec{F}_{21} = -\vec{F}_{12}$ is true in general. Therefore, energy, linear momentum and angular momentum are always conserved. Weber's force law (2) generalizes Coulomb's law for electrostatics to include *velocity dependent* (magnetic) and *acceleration dependent* (induction) forces. This general setup has a significant *computational advantage* compared to Maxwell-Heaviside's field formalism together with the Lorentz force law. We discuss this advantage in more detail in Section 2.4. We also have $\vec{F}_{12} = m_1 \vec{a}_1$ and $\vec{F}_{21} = m_2 \vec{a}_2$, where m_1 and m_2 are the *inertial masses* of the particles and $\vec{a}_1$ and $\vec{a}_2$ are their accelerations with respect to an *inertial frame of reference*. We adopt the *Universal material frame of reference* described in Relational Mechanics [Assis, 1999] as our inertial reference frame.

Helmholtz argued in the 19th century that Weber's model violates the *principle of conservation of energy*, see Assis [2021b]. Weber replied with great detail to these claims and proved energy conservation extensively in his 6th and 7th memoirs. [Assis, 2021b]

Weber proved that his force (2) can be derived from the potential (1), see equation (6). Therefore, it is a conservative force and the work done is path-independent. Nowadays, Weber's electrodynamics is said to be valid only for small velocities (*quasi-static approximation*) compared to c and is not suitable for describing electromagnetic radiation. This might be the biggest point of critique against Weber's electrodynamics. Yet, the third term (acceleration dependent term) in (2) naturally falls off as $1/r$, leaving the door open for alternative theories of radiation.

To test the strengths and weaknesses of Weber's electrodynamics, we provide a computational framework for investigating n -body systems of charged particles through numerical simulations. This allows us to explore the dynamics of charged particles interacting via Weber's force law (2) in various configurations and scenarios. Important aspects like energy, linear momentum and angular momentum conservation can be verified numerically. Furthermore, it paves the way for studying complex systems with oscillatory behavior and wave phenomena within the context of Weber's electrodynamics.

2 Lagrangian and Hamiltonian formulation of Weber's electrodynamics

The Lagrangian and Hamiltonian formulation of Weber's electrodynamics was introduced in 1868 by Carl Neumann, see English translation in [Assis, 2021b]. The standard formalism is described in modern notation in Assis [1994]. We repeat some of the main equations and derive the general Hamiltonian and associated canonical equations for n particles.

Consider a system of two particles with charges q_1 and q_2 and inertial masses m_1 and m_2 . The total kinetic energy of this system is:

$$T = m_1 \frac{\vec{v}_1 \cdot \vec{v}_1}{2} + m_2 \frac{\vec{v}_2 \cdot \vec{v}_2}{2} \quad (3)$$

where $\vec{v}_1 = (\dot{x}_1, \dot{y}_1, \dot{z}_1)$ and $\vec{v}_2 = (\dot{x}_2, \dot{y}_2, \dot{z}_2)$ are the velocities of particles 1 and 2 with respect to our *Universal material frame of reference*.

To define the Lagrangian, we first introduce an expression nearly identical to (1) but with a positive sign in front of the velocity-dependent term:

$$S = \frac{q_1 q_2}{r} \left(1 + \frac{\dot{r}^2}{2c^2} \right) \quad (4)$$

The Lagrangian is then defined as:

$$\boxed{L = T - S} \quad (5)$$

Although the following expression is not directly relevant for our goals, it is worth noting that we can apply the Euler-Lagrange equation to obtain the force (2) for particle 1 in the x -direction:

$$F_{12}^x = \frac{d}{dt} \frac{\partial S}{\partial \dot{x}_1} - \frac{\partial S}{\partial x_1} = q_1 q_2 \frac{(x_1 - x_2)}{r_{12}^3} \left(1 - \frac{\dot{r}^2}{2c^2} + \frac{r\ddot{r}}{c^2} \right) \quad (6)$$

with analogous equations for particle 2 and for the y and z directions.

2.1 Hamiltonian for 2 particles

The Hamiltonian, by definition, is derived from the Lagrangian. For two particles in three spatial dimensions, it is given by

$$H = \sum_{i=1}^2 \left(\dot{x}_i \frac{\partial L}{\partial \dot{x}_i} + \dot{y}_i \frac{\partial L}{\partial \dot{y}_i} + \dot{z}_i \frac{\partial L}{\partial \dot{z}_i} \right) - L \quad (7)$$

This Hamiltonian is a function of individual particle *positions* and *velocities* in three spatial dimensions

$$H = H(x_1, y_1, z_1, x_2, y_2, z_2, \dot{x}_1, \dot{y}_1, \dot{z}_1, \dot{x}_2, \dot{y}_2, \dot{z}_2) \quad (8)$$

Expanding and simplifying (7) yields the Hamiltonian for two charged particles in Weber's electrodynamics

$$H = m_1 \frac{\vec{v}_1 \cdot \vec{v}_1}{2} + m_2 \frac{\vec{v}_2 \cdot \vec{v}_2}{2} + \frac{q_1 q_2}{r} \left(1 - \frac{\dot{r}^2}{2c^2} \right) \quad (9)$$

or more compactly,

$$\boxed{H = T + U} \quad (10)$$

where T is given by (3) and U is the velocity-dependent potential (1).

Before we can apply Hamilton's canonical equations, we perform a *Legendre transform* to express the Hamiltonian in terms of *positions* and *momenta*. For a system of two particles in three spatial dimensions we have

$$H = H(x_1, y_1, z_1, x_2, y_2, z_2, p_{x_1}, p_{y_1}, p_{z_1}, p_{x_2}, p_{y_2}, p_{z_2}) \quad (11)$$

where the velocity $\dot{x}_1$ in (9) is replaced by p_{x_1}/m_1 and similarly for all other velocity components.

Defining

$$\alpha_x = \frac{q_1 q_2}{c^2} \frac{\dot{r}_{12}(x_1 - x_2)}{r_{12}^2} \quad (12)$$

with analogous definitions for α_y and α_z , we apply Hamilton's equations (18) and (19) to obtain

$$\dot{x}_1 = \frac{1}{m_1} (p_{x_1} + \alpha_x) \quad (13)$$

$$\dot{x}_2 = \frac{1}{m_2} (p_{x_2} - \alpha_x) \quad (14)$$

and

$$\dot{p}_{x_1} = \frac{q_1 q_2}{r_{12}^2} \left[\frac{(x_1 - x_2)}{r_{12}} \left(1 - \frac{3\dot{r}_{12}^2}{2c^2} \right) + \frac{\dot{r}_{12}(\dot{x}_1 - \dot{x}_2)}{c^2} \right] \quad (15)$$

$$\dot{p}_{x_2} = -\dot{p}_{x_1} \quad (16)$$

with analogous equations for the y and z directions. Note that $\dot{p}_{x_1} + \dot{p}_{x_2} = 0$, but $\dot{x}_1 - \dot{x}_2 \neq 0$ in general.

2.2 Conserved quantities and symmetries

Weber's electrodynamics for 2 particles conserves energy, linear momentum and angular momentum. These conserved quantities arise from symmetries in the Hamiltonian (10) according to Noether's theorem. The conservation of energy follows from the *time-translation symmetry* of the Hamiltonian, meaning that the Hamiltonian has no explicit time dependence. The conservation of linear momentum arises from the *translational symmetry* of the Hamiltonian, meaning that shifting all particle positions by a constant vector does not change the form of the Hamiltonian. The conservation of angular momentum is a consequence of the *rotational symmetry* of the Hamiltonian, indicating that rotating the entire system around any axis does not change the form of the Hamiltonian. These symmetries arise from the fact that Weber's electrodynamics only relies on what Assis calls *relational quantities*, see Appendix A.1.

2.3 Hamiltonian for n particles

For a system with n particles, the Hamiltonian (9) generalizes to:

$$H = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{2} m_i v_i^2 + \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=i+1}^n \frac{q_i q_j}{r_{ij}} \left(1 - \frac{\dot{r}_{ij}^2}{2c^2} \right) \quad (17)$$

where the double sum is taken over every unique particle pair i and j , see Section 2.4. The conservation laws stated previously still hold for this general case.

For a system of n particles in one spatial dimension x , Hamilton's equations of motion are given by

$$\dot{x}_i = \frac{\partial H}{\partial p_{x_i}} \quad (18)$$

$$\dot{p}_{x_i} = -\frac{\partial H}{\partial x_i} \quad (19)$$

for particle $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$. In three dimensions, we also have the analogous equations for y_i and z_i .

For a system of n particles, (18) expands to

$$\dot{x}_i = \frac{1}{m_i} \left(p_{x_i} + \sum_{\substack{j=1 \\ j \neq i}}^n \frac{q_i q_j}{c^2} \frac{\dot{r}_{ij}(x_i - x_j)}{r_{ij}^2} \right) \quad (20)$$

for particle $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$, with analogous expressions for $\dot{y}_i$ and $\dot{z}_i$, and (19) expands to

$$\dot{p}_{x_i} = \sum_{\substack{j=1 \\ j \neq i}}^n \frac{q_i q_j}{r_{ij}^2} \left[\frac{(x_i - x_j)}{r_{ij}} \left(1 - \frac{3\dot{r}_{ij}^2}{2c^2} \right) + \frac{\dot{r}_{ij}(\dot{x}_i - \dot{x}_j)}{c^2} \right] \quad (21)$$

for particle $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$, with analogous expressions for $\dot{p}_{y_i}$ and $\dot{p}_{z_i}$.

Equations (20) and (21) together with their analogs for y and z directions form a system of $6n$ first-order ordinary differential equations that describe the time evolution

in *phase space* of an n -particle system for Weber's electrodynamics. For any time t , the *state* of the system is represented by a point $\mathbf{z}$ in a $6n$ -dimensional phase space

$$\mathbf{z} = (x_1, y_1, z_1, \dots, x_n, y_n, z_n, p_{x_1}, p_{y_1}, p_{z_1}, \dots, p_{x_n}, p_{y_n}, p_{z_n}) \in \mathbb{R}^{6n} \quad (22)$$

where every component is a function of time t . To evolve the system in time using small discrete time steps Δt , we compute

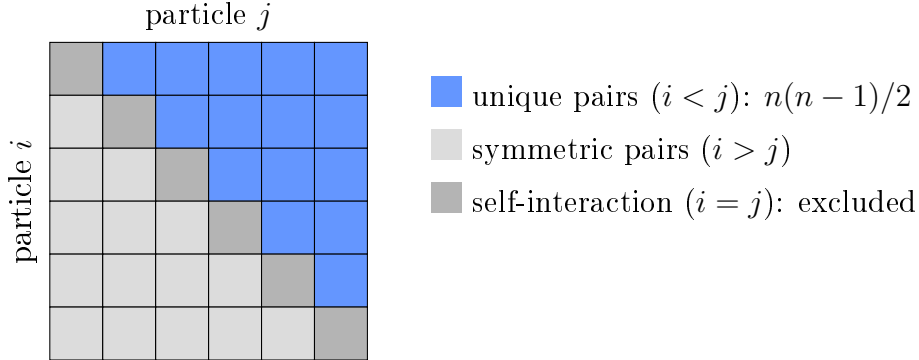
$$x_i^{t+\Delta t} = x_i^t + \Delta t \dot{x}_i^t \quad (23)$$

$$p_{x_i}^{t+\Delta t} = p_{x_i}^t + \Delta t \dot{p}_{x_i}^t \quad (24)$$

and similarly for y_i and z_i , where $\dot{x}_i^t$ and $\dot{p}_{x_i}^t$ are computed using (20) and (21) at time t . Repeating this process iteratively allows us to evolve a system of n charged particles interacting via Weber's electrodynamics over time given some initial positions and momenta.

2.4 Computational complexity of Hamiltonian Weber electrodynamics

To understand the total number of unique interactions, consider an $n \times n$ matrix where entry (i, j) represents the interaction between particles i and j :



For a system of n particles, we thus have a total of $n(n-1)/2$ unique particle pairs, resulting in a computational complexity of order $\mathcal{O}(n^2)$.

A naive implementation would compute all $n(n-1)$ interactions, but by exploiting (12), (13), (14), (15) and (16), we reduce this to $n(n-1)/2$ interactions.

Furthermore, each evaluation of (20) and (21) only needs to compute r_{ij} and $\dot{r}_{ij}$ and their powers once per unique pair, which further reduces the computational load.

2.5 Units and numerical values

When performing numerical computations we often rely on the 64-bit floating point representation of decimal numbers. This number representation introduces a trade-off between range and precision. To maintain optimal precision, it is advantageous to work with number values near the order of magnitude of 1. In Weber's electrodynamics, we are mostly interested in numerical values that are relatively small when expressed in SI-units. In our numerical computations, we will convert to smaller units to obtain larger numerical values for the same physical quantities.

In the 19th century, Gauss and Weber used an absolute system of units based on the *millimeter*, *milligram*, and *second*. This system is not to be confused with the CGS-system of units, also known as the Gaussian system of units [Assis, 2021a]. (1) and (2) were originally introduced by Weber in this absolute system of units. The units in this system for the potential (1) are $mg \cdot mm^2/s^2$ and for the force (2) are $mg \cdot mm/s^2$.

Thus, the original system of Gauss and Weber, compared to the SI system, is better suited for our computational purposes, though not sufficient. In practice, we need even smaller units like *micrometer*, *microgram* and *microsecond* or even smaller to obtain numerical values near the order of magnitude of 1 for typical values of charge, mass and distance encountered in Weber's electrodynamics.

3 Symplectic numerical integration of non-separable Hamiltonian systems

A numerical method is called *symplectic* if it preserves the *phase space volume* of Hamiltonian systems over time according to *Liouville's theorem*. Standard symplectic methods require the Hamiltonian to be separable into kinetic and potential energy terms that depend only on positions or momenta. The general Hamiltonian for Weber's electrodynamics (17) is non-separable because the velocity-dependent term

$$-\frac{q_1 q_2 \dot{r}_{ij}^2}{2c^2 r_{ij}} \quad (25)$$

is both a function of the positions and momenta. Standard symplectic methods cannot be applied directly. Recent work by [Pihajoki, 2015] and [Tao, 2016] introduced explicit symplectic methods using the clever extended phase space method introduced by [Pihajoki, 2015]. Building on these approaches, [Jayawardana and Ohsawa, 2023] developed a semi-explicit symplectic integrator for non-separable Hamiltonian systems that also preserves quadratic invariants, see [Ohsawa, 2023]. As of today, this is one of the most suitable methods for our purposes. We describe it briefly here.

We introduce compact vector notation $\mathbf{q} = (x_1, y_1, z_1, \dots, x_n, y_n, z_n) \in \mathbb{R}^{3n}$ for positions and $\mathbf{p} = (p_{x_1}, p_{y_1}, p_{z_1}, \dots, p_{x_n}, p_{y_n}, p_{z_n}) \in \mathbb{R}^{3n}$ for momenta, so that $\mathbf{z} = (\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{p}) \in \mathbb{R}^{6n}$ as in (22). The extended phase space doubles the phase space by introducing another pair of positions and momenta $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{3n}$ and $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^{3n}$, giving the state vector in extended phase space

$$\mathbf{Z} = (\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{p}, \mathbf{y}) \in \mathbb{R}^{12n} \quad (26)$$

The condition $\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{q}$ and $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{p}$ is equivalent to a system in the original phase space. If

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{I} & -\mathbf{I} & \mathbf{0} & \mathbf{0} \\ \mathbf{0} & \mathbf{0} & \mathbf{I} & -\mathbf{I} \end{pmatrix} \quad (27)$$

where $\mathbf{I}$ and $\mathbf{0}$ denote the $3n \times 3n$ identity and zero matrices, then the condition we are interested in is expressed as

$$\mathbf{AZ} = (\mathbf{q} - \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{p} - \mathbf{y}) = \mathbf{0} \quad (28)$$

We define a *symplectic map* that updates the state vector (26) over a time step Δt

$$\Phi_{\Delta t} : \mathbf{Z}_t \mapsto \mathbf{Z}_{t+\Delta t} \quad (29)$$

Using the update steps (23) and (24) to compute (20) and (21) for $(\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{p})$ and $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y})$ separately, we can evolve the system in the extended phase space by defining two separate flows $\Phi_{\Delta t}^A$ and $\Phi_{\Delta t}^B$ that we apply in this order

- $\Phi_{\Delta t/2}^A$ evolves $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{p})$ from t to $t + \Delta t/2$, using the values of $(\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{y})$ at time t
- $\Phi_{\Delta t}^B$ evolves $(\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{y})$ from t to $t + \Delta t$, using the values of $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{p})$ at time $t + \Delta t/2$
- $\Phi_{\Delta t/2}^A$ evolves $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{p})$ from $t + \Delta t/2$ to $t + \Delta t$, using the values of $(\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{y})$ at time $t + \Delta t$

Our mapping (29) becomes

$$\boxed{\Phi_{\Delta t} = \Phi_{\Delta t/2}^A \circ \Phi_{\Delta t}^B \circ \Phi_{\Delta t/2}^A} \quad (30)$$

This staggered update scheme is referred to as the *leapfrog* method, which is a second-order symplectic integrator.

The key innovation of [Jayawardana and Ohsawa, 2023] is the *symmetric projection method*, which applies a carefully chosen *shift vector* $\boldsymbol{\mu} \in \mathbb{R}^{6n}$ before and after the explicit evolution step (30) to ensure (28).

The full computation can then be succinctly expressed as a non-linear equation

$$\mathbf{f}(\boldsymbol{\mu}) = \mathbf{A}(\Phi_{\Delta t}(\mathbf{Z}_n + \mathbf{A}^T \boldsymbol{\mu}) + \mathbf{A}^T \boldsymbol{\mu}) = 0 \quad (31)$$

where the solution satisfies (28). One can solve this equation iteratively using Newton's method. Starting from an initial guess $\boldsymbol{\mu}_{(0)} = 0$, we compute successive approximations using the *simplified Newton approximations*, see [Jayawardana and Ohsawa, 2023] and [Hairer et al., 2006]

$$\boldsymbol{\mu}_{(k+1)} = \boldsymbol{\mu}_{(k)} - \frac{1}{4} \mathbf{f}(\boldsymbol{\mu}_{(k)}) \quad (32)$$

where k is the iteration index. We repeat this process until

$$\|\boldsymbol{\mu}_{(k+1)} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_{(k)}\| < \epsilon \quad (33)$$

where ϵ is a small tolerance value.

The full specification of this semi-explicit symplectic integrator can be found in Jayawardana and Ohsawa [2023].

4 Discussion

The computational framework presented in this paper enables the numerical simulation of n -body systems governed by Weber's electrodynamics. Beyond validating conservation laws and testing the integrator, this framework opens the door to simulating electronic systems entirely from first principles — from passive analog components such as coils, capacitors and transformers to more general electronic circuitry — using a direct particle-interaction model rather than field-based methods. As noted in the introduction, the acceleration-dependent term in Weber's force (2) falls off as $1/r$, which leaves room for

developing an alternative, action-at-a-distance theory of radiation that can be explored and tested computationally.

Perhaps the most promising direction for future research lies in the remarkable fact that Weber’s force law admits *attraction between like charges* below a critical separation $\rho = ee'/(\mu c^2)$, where μ is the reduced mass. At this critical radius, the effective inertial mass $\mu_{\text{eff}} = \mu(1 - \rho/r)$ changes sign: for $r < \rho$, the particles respond to the still-repulsive Coulomb force as if they had negative inertia, accelerating toward each other rather than away. Weber himself identified this phenomenon in his Sixth Memoir (1871) and called the resulting bound oscillatory state a “molecular movement” [Assis, 2021b].

Frauenfelder and Weber [2024] have provided a complete classification of all classical trajectories in this sub-critical regime and a striking geometric reinterpretation: the Weber plane carries a metric $g_{rr} = (r - \rho)/r$ that is Riemannian for $r > \rho$ but Lorentzian for $r < \rho$, with the radial direction becoming timelike below the critical radius. This metric signature change is the geometric manifestation of the negative effective mass. Crucially, their analysis shows that classical collisions at the origin are regularizable only when the angular momentum $\ell = 0$, corresponding to purely radial (head-on) motion. For $\ell \neq 0$, particles spiral into the origin at infinite speed in finite time, and no smooth coordinate transformation can remove this singularity — the infinite winding number is a topological obstruction preserved by all regularization techniques.

This constraint poses a fundamental challenge: finding stable, bound configurations of like charges below the critical radius that go beyond purely radial oscillation. One avenue is to develop advanced regularization or stabilization techniques that could handle the $\ell \neq 0$ singularity. Another, perhaps more promising, approach is to expand our view beyond the isolated two-body problem and consider multi-particle systems — for instance, balancing a pair of like charges in the sub-critical regime with oppositely charged particles above ρ , or exploring other conceivable configurations whose mutual interactions provide the stabilizing forces that a single pair lacks. The goal, in all cases, is to find dynamically stable bound states of charged particles.

This line of investigation is part of a long-standing program that originated with Weber himself and his planetary model of the atom [Assis et al., 2011], in which bound pairs of like charges form atomic nuclei while unlike charges orbit under the combined electrodynamic forces. With the computational tools presented here, and with modern AI-assisted methods that can efficiently search the space of possible configurations — automating algebraic manipulations, symmetry analysis and systematic testing by numerical integration — one can explore this vast landscape of possibilities more thoroughly than was previously feasible. The ultimate goal of this program would be to uncover the electrodynamic origins of the periodic table of elements.

A Notation and relational magnitudes

For a system of two particles, we have the following magnitudes. Particle 1 and particle 2 have electric charges q_1, q_2 and inertial masses m_1, m_2 . In the Gauss-Weber system of units, charge has dimensions of $\sqrt{mg \cdot mm^3/s^2}$.

The individual particle positions, velocities and accelerations are

$$\begin{aligned}
\vec{r}_1 &= (x_1, y_1, z_1) & \vec{r}_2 &= (x_2, y_2, z_2) \\
\vec{v}_1 &= (\dot{x}_1, \dot{y}_1, \dot{z}_1) & \vec{v}_2 &= (\dot{x}_2, \dot{y}_2, \dot{z}_2) \\
\vec{a}_1 &= (\ddot{x}_1, \ddot{y}_1, \ddot{z}_1) & \vec{a}_2 &= (\ddot{x}_2, \ddot{y}_2, \ddot{z}_2)
\end{aligned}$$

The individual particle momenta are

$$\begin{aligned}
p_{x_1} &= m_1 \dot{x}_1 & p_{x_2} &= m_2 \dot{x}_2 \\
p_{y_1} &= m_1 \dot{y}_1 & p_{y_2} &= m_2 \dot{y}_2 \\
p_{z_1} &= m_1 \dot{z}_1 & p_{z_2} &= m_2 \dot{z}_2
\end{aligned}$$

A.1 Relational magnitudes

We adopt the term *relational magnitudes* from [Assis, 1999] for magnitudes that are intrinsic to the system. Relational magnitudes have the same value in all reference frames and for all observers, even non-inertial ones.

The relative positions, velocities and accelerations between particle 1 and particle 2 are

$$\begin{aligned}
x &= x_1 - x_2 & \dot{x} &= \dot{x}_1 - \dot{x}_2 & \ddot{x} &= \ddot{x}_1 - \ddot{x}_2 \\
y &= y_1 - y_2 & \dot{y} &= \dot{y}_1 - \dot{y}_2 & \ddot{y} &= \ddot{y}_1 - \ddot{y}_2 \\
z &= z_1 - z_2 & \dot{z} &= \dot{z}_1 - \dot{z}_2 & \ddot{z} &= \ddot{z}_1 - \ddot{z}_2
\end{aligned}$$

The relative position, velocity and acceleration vectors are

$$\begin{aligned}
\vec{r} &= (x, y, z) \\
\vec{v} &= (\dot{x}, \dot{y}, \dot{z}) \\
\vec{a} &= (\ddot{x}, \ddot{y}, \ddot{z})
\end{aligned}$$

The relative distance is

$$r = |\vec{r}| = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2 + z^2}$$

The relative radial velocity is

$$\dot{r} = \frac{x\dot{x} + y\dot{y} + z\dot{z}}{r} = \frac{\vec{r} \cdot \vec{v}}{r} = \hat{r} \cdot \vec{v}$$

The relative radial acceleration is

$$\begin{aligned}
\ddot{r} &= \frac{x\ddot{x} + y\ddot{y} + z\ddot{z}}{r} + \frac{\dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2 + \dot{z}^2}{r} - \frac{(x\dot{x} + y\dot{y} + z\dot{z})^2}{r^3} \\
&= \frac{\vec{r} \cdot \vec{a}}{r} + \frac{\vec{v} \cdot \vec{v}}{r} - \frac{(\vec{r} \cdot \vec{v})^2}{r^3} \\
&= \frac{1}{r} (\vec{r} \cdot \vec{a} + \vec{v} \cdot \vec{v} - \dot{r}^2)
\end{aligned}$$

The relative unit vector is

$$\hat{r} = \frac{\vec{r}}{r}$$

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